Chapter 9 | Written solutions

Scaling Data, Compute, and Expert Capacity

Goal

Work through all 14 exercises, from counting training presentations to designing a fair dense-versus-expert comparison. The first six build intuition with hand calculations; Exercises 7-11 use small numerical investigations; Exercises 12-14 extend the ideas. Every result uses the stated inputs. The loss curve is synthetic, and the fixed expert weights illustrate routing rather than trained specialization. The last exercise is a proposed protocol, not a report of an experiment that has been run.

The written PDF contains the explanations, calculations, tables, and plot. The notebook PDF also contains every code cell and saved result.

Steps

For each exercise, first follow the calculation in words, then check it numerically.

1. Spend the same budget

A 12-billion-parameter dense model processes 300 billion token presentations. The estimate is $C \approx 6ND$. Both counts are raw counts, so both factors of 10^9 must be included:

$$C \approx 6(12 \times 10^9)(300 \times 10^9) = 2.16 \times 10^{22} \text{ FLOPs}.$$

The factor six approximates three matrix multiplications per linear map: one forward multiplication and two backward multiplications, each costing about two operations per weight per input row. Attention products and other operations need separate accounting.

Doubling the number of weights doubles the approximate cost per presentation. At a fixed budget we can afford half as many presentations:

$$D \approx \frac{2.16 \times 10^{22}}{6(24 \times 10^9)} = 150 \times 10^9.$$

Doubling both original counts means twice the work per token and twice as many tokens. The estimate becomes four times larger, 8.64×10^{22} FLOPs.

Run	Parameters (billions)	Presentations (billions)	Estimated FLOPs
Original	12	300	2.16×10^{22}
Larger model, same budget	24	150	2.16×10^{22}
Double both original counts	24	600	8.64×10^{22}

FLOPs measure work, whereas FLOPs per second measure a rate. Equal FLOP estimates do not guarantee equal runtime on real hardware.

2. Count what the model sees

An epoch is one complete pass through a corpus. Corpus A contains 120 million token positions and is read three times. Corpus B contains 360 million positions and is read once. Both runs process 360 million presentations:

$$D_A = 3(120 \times 10^6) = 360 \times 10^6, \qquad D_B = 1(360 \times 10^6) = 360 \times 10^6.$$

With the same dense model, both estimates equal $6N(360 \times 10^6) = 2.16 \times 10^9 N$ FLOPs. The corpus position count differs, even though the work estimate agrees. Neither count is vocabulary size: many positions can contain the same token type.

The learning evidence need not agree. Corpus A presents its contexts three times; Corpus B may introduce more varied contexts. Repetition can help learn useful patterns, while more positions can also include irrelevant text or duplicates. The counts alone do not tell us which model has lower held-out loss. Compare on the same reserved text with the same tokenizer. Keep duplicate documents in a single split so that training copies do not leak into evaluation.

3. Trace a token

The input is $x = (1, 0, 0, 0)$ and the expert probabilities are $(0.1, 0.6, 0.2, 0.1)$. These are probabilities over experts, not predictions over vocabulary tokens. Assume all selected requests are accepted.

Switch chooses expert 2, keeps its original gate 0.6, and computes

$$y_{\text{Switch}} = 0.6(2, -1, 0, 3) = (1.2, -0.6, 0, 1.8),$$

so the residual output is $x + y_{\text{Switch}} = (2.2, -0.6, 0, 1.8)$.

For the selected-logit top-two rule, retain experts 2 and 3. Their original probabilities sum to 0.8. Dividing by that sum preserves their ratio while making the retained gates sum to one:

$$g_2 = 0.6/0.8 = 0.75, \qquad g_3 = 0.2/0.8 = 0.25.$$

Expert	Gate	Given output	Gated contribution
2	0.75	$(2, -1, 0, 3)$	$(1.5, -0.75, 0, 2.25)$
3	0.25	$(0, 1, 4, -1)$	$(0, 0.25, 1, -0.25)$

The contributions sum to $y = (1.5, -0.5, 1, 2)$. Add the original input once to obtain $(2.5, -0.5, 1, 2)$. Adding it separately to each expert output would change the operation.

The denominator excludes experts 1 and 4 because only the selected pair is renormalized. Equivalently, softmax acts on the two retained logits. This rule differs from Switch: renormalizing a single retained logit gives gate one. The helper below makes that distinction explicit. The expert outputs here are given vectors, separate from the later fixed teaching bank.

4. Count a wider bank

Each expert uses a 6×12 up projection and a 12×6 down projection. These are two bias-free matrices, so one expert has $72 + 72 = 144$ weights. Four experts store 576 weights. The router adds $6 \times 4 = 24$, giving 600 stored weights in this routed branch.

Component or path	Weight count
One two-matrix expert	$2(6)(12) = 144$
Four experts	$4(144) = 576$
Router	$6(4) = 24$
Whole branch stored	$576 + 24 = 600$
One accepted top-one token	$144 + 24 = 168$
One token accepted by two experts	$2(144) + 24 = 312$

The router scores all four choices once for either policy. The unselected experts remain stored, and other rows in a batch may use them. Counts include all entries in the matrices, including zero-valued entries. The formulas assume two-matrix ReLU experts. For SwiGLU, each expert instead has three matrices and $3dh$ weights. Softmax, activations, communication, and shared attention layers add work beyond these parameter counts.

5. Separate demand from room

The average number of requests per expert is $T/E = 8/4 = 2$. A capacity factor of 1.5 reserves three slots at each expert:

$$K_{\text{cap}} = \lceil 1.5(8/4) \rceil = 3.$$

The request counts are $(1, 5, 1, 1)$. Expert 2 admits rows 2, 3, and 4 in input order. Rows 5 and 6 overflow. Each other expert accepts its single request, so the accepted counts are $(1, 3, 1, 1)$ and six rows are processed.

Capacity per expert	Accepted rows	Overflow rows	Overflow fraction	Slot utilization
3	6	5, 6	$2/8 = 25\%$	$6/12 = 50\%$
5	8	None	$0/8 = 0\%$	$8/20 = 40\%$

The denominators answer different questions. Overflow divides rejected requests by all requests. Utilization divides accepted assignments by reserved slots. At capacity three, expert 2 is full while the other experts have unused slots. The policy does not redirect rejected requests or lend slots between experts. At capacity five all requests fit, but reserving more slots lowers the utilization fraction. Overflow skips the expert update; it does not erase a token from the sequence or its training target.

6. Read a router diagnostic carefully

Equal logits give equal probabilities. Every row therefore has probabilities $(1/4, 1/4, 1/4, 1/4)$. Our tie rule picks the lowest expert ID, so all four rows request expert 1. The hard request fractions and the average probabilities are different:

$$f = (1, 0, 0, 0), \qquad P = (1/4, 1/4, 1/4, 1/4), \qquad b = 4f^\top P = 1.$$

Capacity one admits row 1 and rejects rows 2, 3, and 4. Three of four requests overflow, although three other experts remain empty.

For the second router, each of the four experts wins exactly once. Each column contains one 0.7 and three 0.1 probabilities, so its mean is $(0.7 + 3 \cdot 0.1)/4 = 1/4$. Now both f and P are uniform:

$$b = 4\,[4(1/4)(1/4)] = 1.$$

All four requests fit. Thus the same auxiliary value accompanies two very different outcomes. The value 1 is a useful reference, not proof that hard requests are balanced. Monitor request counts, accepted counts, and overflow alongside the raw balance term. Its mean-probability part provides gradients to the router during training; hard argmax counts are not differentiated.

7. Refine the sweep

Imagine choosing between a model with 10 billion parameters and another with 13 billion. At the same training budget, the second model spends more on every token and can therefore process fewer tokens. The exercise asks whether the improvement in the chapter's size penalty is large enough to offset the increase in its token penalty. The chapter table tried sizes 5, 10, 20, 40, and 80 billion and found the lowest loss at 10 billion. Now test more choices between 10 and 20.

The notation $N_B = N/10^9$ and $D_B = D/10^9$ expresses the parameter count and token presentations in billions. Substituting the raw counts $N = N_B 10^9$ and $D = D_B 10^9$ into $C \approx 6ND$ gives $C \approx 6 \cdot 10^{18} N_B D_B$. The same budget fixes their product.

$$N_B D_B = \frac{2.4 \cdot 10^{22}}{6 \cdot 10^{18}} = 4000, \qquad D_B = \frac{4000}{N_B}.$$

For each size, `allocation_sweep` solves for its token allocation and evaluates the toy loss $1 + 0.4/\sqrt{N_B} + 2/\sqrt{D_B}$. Each returned row contains model size, token count, and loss, in that order. We select the minimum by the loss in the third field and use the full precision of the returned values. The table formatting only changes how the numbers appear.

The best refined row gives 13 billion parameters, approximately 307.692308 billion token presentations, and a toy loss of about 1.224957582. The 10-billion row still has its previous loss of about 1.226491106. We added the 12-, 13-, and 14-billion choices between the original 10- and 20-billion rows, so the sweep could now select an allocation that the chapter's table did not test.

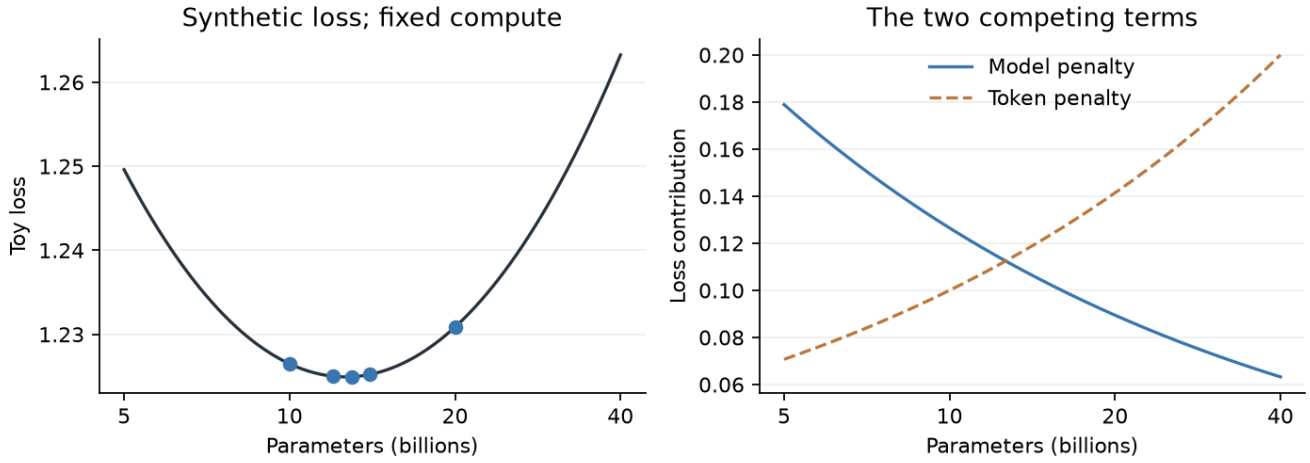
We can see the tradeoff in the two loss terms. From 10 to 13 billion parameters, the size penalty falls from about 0.126491 to 0.110940. The token penalty rises from 0.100000 to about 0.114018. The decrease in the first term is larger than the increase in the second, so the total falls.

To verify the budget, use the returned token allocation with its full precision, rather than the rounded number printed in the table. Multiplying each count by 10^9 converts it to the units expected by `training_flops`. The helper can use a fractional token count for this calculation because solving the budget equation is a continuous approximation. A real run would choose a whole number of token presentations.

The check agrees at the scale of the budget, with relative tolerance 10^{-14} and zero absolute tolerance. A budget of $2.4 \cdot 10^{22}$ is too large for a useful comparison based on a small absolute error. The relative tolerance compares the discrepancy to the magnitude of the budget.

The chosen row minimizes the chapter's made-up loss over the tested sizes. Its advantage comes from changing which sizes are available at the same compute budget. Exercise 13 finds the minimum of this same curve when any positive size is allowed.

The plot below shows the same synthetic curve, with the refined candidates overlaid. The best sampled point at 13B is close to, but distinct from, the continuous minimum near 12.65B. The companion panel explains the shape: the model penalty falls while the token penalty rises at fixed compute. These are calculated curves, not empirical training measurements.



8. Check the score shift

A router looks at a row of scores, called **logits**, and requests the expert with the largest score. For this token the four expert probabilities are $(0.1, 0.6, 0.2, 0.1)$. Take their natural logarithms to build a single logit row. Applying softmax to those logs exponentiates them back to the four probabilities, whose sum is already one.

The shape $[1, 4]$ means one token and four experts. Adding a common constant c to all four scores preserves their order. In particular, the second score stays the largest. The output ID is 1 because Python indices start at zero. The expert is Expert 2 in the chapter's one-based numbering.

The probabilities should also agree. To see why, write s_i for the logit of expert i. The shift contributes the same multiplicative factor $exp(c)$ to the numerator and denominator.

$$\frac{\exp(s_i + c)}{\sum_j \exp(s_j + c)} = \frac{\exp(c)\exp(s_i)}{\exp(c)\sum_j \exp(s_j)} = \frac{\exp(s_i)}{\sum_j \exp(s_j)}.$$

That factor cancels in exact arithmetic. In Python, exponentiating a value near 1,000 directly would overflow in float64. The chapter's softmax first subtracts the largest logit in the row, leaving nonpositive inputs to the exponential and at least one exponential of zero. The subtraction also cancels a common shift in exact arithmetic. Small rounding differences may remain because the additions and subtractions use finite precision.

The selected ID is exactly the same in both runs. One request fits within capacity one. The gate is the probability of the selected expert, about 0.6, so it agrees as well. The helper keeps that probability as the gate after choosing one expert. It does not rescale it to one. The code checks the IDs and Boolean masks for exact equality and uses absolute tolerance 10^{-12} with zero relative tolerance for float64 probabilities and gates. The last two lines show the rounding differences before the arrays are formatted for display.

9. Move the capacity limit

Put score 2 in one column per row and leave all the other scores at zero. Because 2 is strictly greater than zero, every row has a unique winner. The eight rows request experts with zero-based IDs $0, 1, 1, 1, 1, 1, 2, 3$. Written with the chapter's expert labels, the request counts are $(1, 5, 1, 1)$ for Experts 1 through 4.

Capacity is a separate limit on how many requests each expert accepts. The teaching router gathers the requests for one expert in original row order and keeps the first `capacity` of them. Expert 2 receives rows 2 through 6, so at capacity 2 it accepts rows 2 and 3. The other experts receive one request each and can accept all of theirs. These row numbers start at one to match the book.

For each capacity, use the Boolean acceptance mask to select the IDs of accepted rows. Count those IDs with `np.bincount`. Setting `minlength=4` keeps one slot per expert even if an expert accepted no rows. To find overflow rows, locate the false entries in the mask and add one to the resulting indices. A row that overflows still has a selected ID.

At capacity 3, the extra slot at Expert 2 admits row 4, leaving rows 5 and 6 in overflow. At capacity 5 all eight requests fit. In all three runs the three other experts accept one row apiece.

Empty slots elsewhere cannot take Expert 2's extra requests. For example, at capacity 2 there are eight slots across the four experts, but Expert 2 has only two of them. Each of the other three experts has one unused slot, which this router cannot give to Expert 2. There is no retry with another expert after overflow. Changing capacity therefore changes which requests are executed while leaving the score matrix and the requested expert for each row the same.

10. Check the residual

The chapter's `teaching_weights()` gives the router matrix and both expert projections. The input $x = (1, 0, 0, 0)$ is a row of shape $[1, 4]$. Multiplying it by the router matrix selects the matrix's first row, because the first input coordinate is 1 and all the rest are zero. That row contains the same logarithms as in Exercise 8, so the router requests Expert 2 with gate 0.6.

At capacity one, the expert's up projection copies the input's first coordinate into its first hidden unit. The remaining hidden coordinates are zero. ReLU preserves this vector by replacing only negative entries with zero. The down projection uses the first row of the expert's down matrix to produce $(2, -1, 0, 3)$. Multiplying by the gate gives the branch update.

$$0.6(2, -1, 0, 3) = (1.2, -0.6, 0, 1.8).$$

Adding the original input then gives $(2.2, -0.6, 0, 1.8)$. At capacity zero, the route still requests Expert 2 and the gate still records 0.6. The acceptance mask is false. The branch helper starts with a zero update and fills it only for accepted rows. So this row keeps its zero update and the residual addition returns $(1, 0, 0, 0)$.

The branch update and residual output answer different questions. At capacity zero, the expert branch changes no features. The token's input still travels through the residual path, which is why its output is the original vector. The acceptance mask is the part of the router result that changes between these runs. The next exercise compares requests and acceptances for a whole batch.

11. Compare requests with probabilities

Suppose five of eight tokens ask for expert 2. That expert can receive three of them at capacity three or two of them at capacity two. We still want to describe how many tokens asked for it and how strongly the router favored it. Those are two different summaries of the same router scores.

A row of the identity matrix contains a single 1 and three zeros. Multiplying it by the router matrix selects the row at the position of that 1. The index list `[1, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 2, 3]` selects router row 0 five times and each of the other rows once. The teaching weights are logarithms of probability vectors. Exponentiating and normalizing a selected row recovers its original probabilities because they already sum to one.

For each expert i, compute the **request fraction** f_i by counting how many rows chose it and dividing by eight. The **mean probability** P_i averages column i over all eight rows, including rows that chose another expert. For example, five rows give expert 2 probability 0.6 and the three others give it 0.2 each, so $P_2 = (5 \cdot 0.6 + 3 \cdot 0.2)/8 = 0.45$. Its request fraction is $f_2 = 5/8 = 0.625$.

NumPy counts the returned expert IDs from 0 through 3. The printed requests add one so that they use the book's expert numbers. Use `np.bincount` on the full array of IDs for the request counts and on just the IDs with a true mask entry for accepted counts. Setting `minlength=4` keeps a column even if it gets no rows. Use `mean(axis=0)` to average the probability rows while preserving one result per expert.

The chapter's raw balance term multiplies the two summaries expert by expert and adds the contributions, then multiplies by the number of experts $E = 4$. Here the four products are 0.0203125, 0.28125, 0.028125, and 0.0203125.

$$b = E \sum_{i=1}^{E} f_i P_i = 4(0.0203125 + 0.28125 + 0.028125 + 0.0203125) = 1.4.$$

Expert 2 contributes most because it has both the largest fraction of requests and the largest mean probability. Multiplying b by a training coefficient would give its weighted contribution to the training loss. We report b itself here. Repeat the calculation for capacity two, then compare the returned arrays. Use float64 with an absolute tolerance of 10^{-12} and zero relative tolerance for the probability calculations. Check integer counts and masks exactly.

Capacity three accepts rows 2, 3, and 4 for expert 2. With capacity two, row 4 also overflows. The other experts each process their single request in both runs, so total acceptance changes from six rows to five. The probabilities, selected IDs, gates, f, P, and b agree because the router scores are the same and capacity is applied after the requests are made. A gate is returned even for a rejected request. The expert branch uses the acceptance mask to decide whether to apply it.

If we formed f from processed rows, changing capacity would change our estimate of demand even with the same input and weights. Dividing the processed counts by eight at capacity three would also give fractions that sum to $6/8$. The chapter's definition counts every request before filtering, so its fractions sum to one at both capacities.

12. Track two devices (optional)

All eight input rows start on A. Expert 2 receives five requests, but only rows 2, 3, and 4 fit its capacity of three. First determine acceptance; then count which accepted assignments are remote.

Expert	Device	Requested rows	Accepted rows	Overflow rows
1	A	1	1	None
2	B	2, 3, 4, 5, 6	2, 3, 4	5, 6
3	A	7	7	None
4	B	8	8	None

A processes two local assignments, and B processes four remote assignments. Each remote assignment sends one width-1,024 input vector and returns one width-1,024 output vector. At two bytes per coordinate, each vector is $1024 \times 2 = 2048$ bytes. Thus

$$\text{payload} = 4 \text{ assignments} \times 2 \text{ directions} \times 1024 \times 2 \text{ bytes} = 16384 \text{ bytes} = 16 \text{ KiB}.$$

Dispatch accounts for 8,192 bytes and return for another 8,192 bytes. The two rejected rows remain on A and receive zero expert updates. This count assumes admission occurs before transfer and counts forward vector payload only. Metadata, protocol overhead, padding, and backward traffic are outside the question. If two selected experts for one token were remote, both assignments would count. Token count and assignment count need not agree.

13. Find the best continuous allocation (optional)

The 13-billion result in Exercise 7 came from a short list of sizes. Suppose we can choose any positive model size and can use the corresponding token count as a real number. This gives a continuous problem. At first, the budget fixes $Q = N_B D_B = 4000$. The token count must be $D_B = Q/N_B$.

Write $z = \sqrt{N_B} > 0$. Then $N_B = z^2$ and $\sqrt{D_B} = \sqrt{Q}/z$. The positive square root is important because z represents the square root of a positive count. After substitution, the two penalties and the floor give

$$\ell_{\text{toy}} = 1 + \frac{0.4}{z} + \frac{2z}{\sqrt{Q}} = 1 + \frac{a}{z} + bz, \qquad a = 0.4, \quad b = \frac{2}{\sqrt{Q}}.$$

As the model grows, a/z falls and bz rises. Their product $(a/z)(bz) = ab$ stays fixed. The arithmetic–geometric mean inequality says the sum of two positive numbers is at least twice the square root of their product. We can see it here by writing the excess above that lower bound as a square.

$$\frac{a}{z} + bz - 2\sqrt{ab} = \left(\sqrt{a/z} - \sqrt{bz}\right)^2 \geq 0.$$

The lower bound is attained when the square is zero. This requires $a/z = bz$, so **the two penalties are equal at the minimum**. Since $a, b > 0$, exactly one positive z satisfies that condition. Solving for z^2 then gives the size and token count in billions.

$$N_B^* = z^2 = \frac{a}{b} = 0.2\sqrt{Q}, \qquad D_B^* = \frac{Q}{N_B^*} = 5\sqrt{Q}.$$

At $Q = 4000$, these counts are approximately 12.649111 billion parameters and 316.227766 billion token presentations. Each penalty is about 0.112468265, so the total including the floor is about 1.224936530.

The compute budget is proportional to Q because $C \approx 6 \cdot 10^{18} Q$. Quadrupling C from $2.4 \cdot 10^{22}$ to $9.6 \cdot 10^{22}$ makes Q four times larger. Both optimal counts are proportional to $\sqrt{Q}$, so both double. The new continuous optimum is about 25.298221 billion parameters and 632.455532 billion token presentations. The ratio $D_B^*/N_B^* = 25$ is constant in this example.

Check both budgets on a grid from 5.0 to 40.0 billion, in steps of 0.1. Generate integer tenths and divide by 10 to include both endpoints without accumulating floating-point step errors. Compare the two penalties and inspect neighboring losses before rounding.

At the original budget the grid winner is 12.6 billion parameters and 317.460317 billion token presentations. Sizes 12.6 and 12.7 bracket the continuous optimum of 12.649111. Their losses differ by only about $2.78 \cdot 10^{-8}$, so compare the returned values before rounding.

At four times the budget the grid winner is 25.3 billion parameters and 632.411067 billion presentations. Its loss exceeds the continuous minimum by only about $9.83 \cdot 10^{-11}$. The continuous counts double exactly; the grid winners need not. Twice 12.6 is 25.2, but 25.3 is better on the larger-budget grid.

The equal-penalty rule and 25-to-1 ratio follow from this particular toy loss and its coefficients. For real training, measure a loss surface on held-out text and estimate compute for the models being compared.

14. Plan a fair comparison (optional)

We want to compare held-out next-token loss at a common approximate training compute budget. We will also report parameter storage, overflow, and measured generation time. This is an experimental plan; no winning model is assumed.

Use four causal decoder blocks of width $d = 256$, four attention heads, and context length 256. Keep attention, positional representation, normalization, residual paths, embeddings, and vocabulary projection identical. Change the feed-forward branch in every block. Choose a dense two-matrix ReLU branch of hidden width 1,024, or eight two-matrix ReLU experts of width 1,020 with a bias-free router. These widths match matrix-weight use for an accepted top-one token while allowing different total storage.

Quantity per block	Dense branch	Routed branch
One expert or dense network	$2(256)(1024) = 524288$	$2(256)(1020) = 522240$
Router	0	$256(8) = 2048$
Stored branch weights	524288	$8(522240) + 2048 = 4179968$
Weights used for an accepted token	524288	$522240 + 2048 = 524288$
Weights used for an overflow token	Not applicable	2048

Freeze a deduplicated corpus and record a manifest of document IDs. Assign groups of duplicate or near-duplicate documents to one split, using a fixed 80/10/10 split by group. Train an 8,192-entry tokenizer on the training split only. Both models use the same next-token windows, document boundaries, and ignored padding labels. Use five paired seeds, 101-105: copy the shared initial tensors within each pair and use the same training batch order. Each run gets a fresh AdamW optimizer with betas $(0.9, 0.999)$, weight decay 0.01, peak learning rate 3×10^{-4}, 5% warmup, and cosine decay indexed by the fraction of the training budget spent. Keep the held-out test set untouched until the evaluation protocol and hyperparameters are fixed.

Use Switch-style top-one routing and capacity $\lceil 1.25T/8 \rceil$ for T valid input rows in each routing group. Fix the grouping and acceptance order. Overflow skips the expert update but keeps the residual representation and next-token supervision. Add the raw balance term with coefficient 0.01 during training. Validation and test loss should report the next-token objective separately from the auxiliary term.

Let T_ℓ count valid rows and A_ℓ count accepted requests at layer ℓ in one batch. When the kernels process only those rows, estimate the branch's forward-plus-backward matrix work as

$$C_{\text{dense}} \approx 6 \sum_{\ell} T_\ell(524288),$$

$$C_{\text{routed}} \approx 6 \sum_{\ell} \left[T_\ell(2048) + A_\ell(522240) \right].$$

Add the shared attention projections, attention products, and vocabulary projection using actual batch shapes. If a kernel multiplies padded rows or reserved slots, charge those executed rows too. Record routing, elementwise operations, and optimizer overhead separately. Stop after the first update that reaches a common approximate budget, for example 10^{14} FLOPs, and report the realized total and final-batch overshoot. Also record updates and presentations: equal compute can allow different token counts when requests overflow. Neither active-parameter counts nor this arithmetic estimate establish equal runtime.

Evaluate the final checkpoint from each run. Sum negative log probabilities over valid held-out labels and divide by their total count, giving nats per token. Aggregate counts across batches before dividing, rather than averaging batch means equally. Report each seed's loss and the mean and spread across the paired runs. Compute overflow as rejected requests divided by all valid requests, both overall and per layer, separately for training and evaluation. Also inspect request counts, mean probabilities, accepted counts, and slot utilization. One token can make a request in each routed layer, so this denominator counts requests, not distinct sequence positions.

For generation timing, use the same accelerator, precision, software, 16 prompts of length 128, and 64 generated tokens per prompt. Fix greedy decoding, the KV-cache procedure, and the routing capacity policy. Warm up, synchronize the accelerator around timed intervals, alternate model order, and report median times over repeated runs. Include prompt processing in end-to-end time. Also report prefill through the first token selection and the remaining 63 cached decoding steps separately. Record peak memory and, if experts are distributed, the placement and communication payload. This distinguishes quality at the selected training budget from the cost of serving the resulting models.

Checks

The notebook checks the budget identities, both gate rules, exact accepted rows, capacity-dependent overflow, and the refined versus continuous optima. Exercises 5 and 6 demonstrate why slot utilization and the auxiliary balance term must be interpreted alongside their underlying counts. The synthetic loss optimum and its 25-to-1 token ratio belong to the chosen teaching function; neither is a universal recommendation for real training.

Next Steps

Change one assumption at a time: the model-size grid, the expert capacity, or the router logits. Predict the affected outputs before rerunning. For a real scaling study, replace the synthetic loss with comparable held-out measurements and fit only within a justified experimental range. For real MoE systems, measure executed work, communication, and elapsed time.

The chapter's primary references include Chinchilla, Switch Transformers, and Mixtral. The exact calculations here are reproducible from the companion code and the inputs declared in each exercise.